April 2020) has put forth the additional possibility of Kushk-i Nakhud, a.k.a. Sabz Qala' (66 km west of Qandahar) as Tiginabad, as the site might have been larger than Qandahar itself, and ceramic finds there have been dated from the first through fifteenth centuries CE.

87. Ball 1988: 138 (original emphasis), and Ball 2008: 230; see also Helms 1982: 15; Helms 1997: 3–4. The city reclaimed real imperial significance only when the Timurid ruler Husain Bayqara (r. AH 874–912/1470–1506 CE) established a mint there in the late fifteenth century. Cf. Inaba 2010.
88. The depredations of Nadir Shah Afshar (1688–1747) and his forces during his India campaign – where the aim was plunder of the Mughal treasury and libraries – resulted in considerable destruction in the vicinity of Old Qandahar in the mid-1730s. This in turn has rendered a full *re*construction of earlier phases of the city quite difficult. Cf. Whitehouse 1976: 473; Ball 1996: 402. The Afsharid soldier-adventurer's initial choice of the southern route *via* Qandahar in 1736 was clearly strategic, rather than commercial or practical, however: after their brief sojourn in the Qandahar region, the Afsharid forces ultimately turned northeast toward Kabul and Jalalabad. They entered India *via* the Khyber Pass in 1738–1739, visiting intimidation and destruction upon all in their path, whenever necessary. See Dupree 2012: 330–331.
89. Ball (1988: 135) suggested that the Shansabani presence in Tiginabad/Old Qandahar commenced in AH 521/1127 CE, which would fall within the reign of 'Izz al-Din Husain (r. 1100–1146 CE). The nature of the archaeological evidence (see *infra* in main text) nonetheless points to the later date of *c.* AH 552/1158 CE, when the Shansabanis were a more important politico-military and economic presence in the region. Moreover, the confusion between 'Izz al-Din and 'Ala' al-Din *Jahan-suz* in Khwafi's fourteenth-century *Majmu'al-i Fasihi* – the source noting AH 521/1127 CE for the Ghaznavid–Shansabani confrontation – was actually cited by Raverty in his copious footnotes to Juzjani's text (cf. trans. vol. I, 1881: 110, n. 5). Again, the later date as noted by Juzjani himself seems the more probable. The at best indirect references to these events in two contemporaneous sources – *viz.* Juzjani and Fakhr-i Mudabbir – have added to the tentativeness of dating. Cf. also Bosworth [1977] 1992: 121–122.
90. See also Chapters 1 and 5. Sultan Ghiyath al-Din granted the fort of Istiya to his as yet untitled but ambitious younger brother Shihab al-Din, likely in the mid-1160s (cf. Chapters 4–5). During the previous generation of Shansabanis, the region had been the appanage of Saif al-Din (d. AH 544/1149 CE) who, among 'Izz al-Din's seven sons was the third born, but the first by his *lawful* wife and thus took precedent over his two older half-brothers. The locality of Istiya can be tentatively placed within the Shansabanis' *garm-sir*. Cf. Juzjani vol. I, 1963: 335–336 (trans. vol. I, 1881: 339–340).
91. See Whitehouse 1976: 484; Whitehouse 1996: 4–5; Ball 1996: 400; Ball pers. comm., February 2018.
92. Two excavation reports by Whitehouse (1976 and 1996) reflect different stages of the archaeological work. For example, the earlier report (1976) was published prior to the rediscovery of the second burial in Mound A.
93. Cf. Whitehouse 1976: 483; Whitehouse 1996: 4; Crowe 1996: 314; Ball, Bordeaux et al. 2019: 433–434. Whitehouse in particular proposed parallels